



Deep Learning

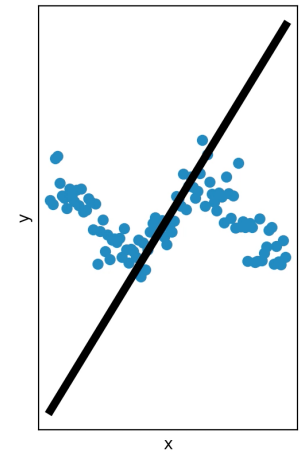
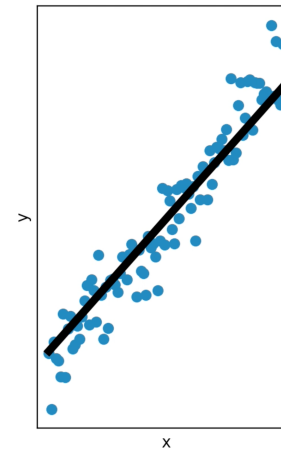
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Outline

- Linear models
 - Linear regression
 - Logistic regression
- Neural networks
 - Architecture and backpropagation
 - Deep neural networks
 - Overfitting
 - Optimization

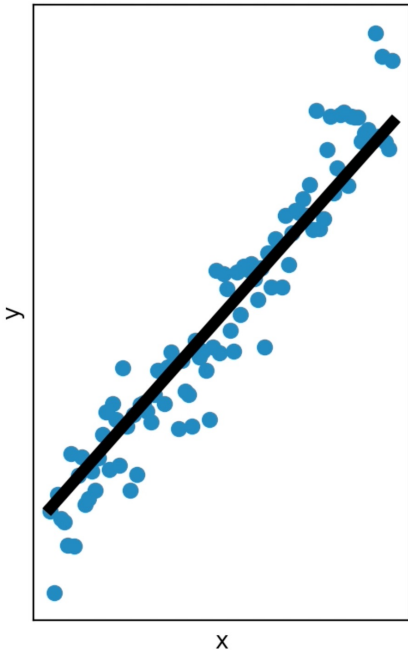
Hypothesis Space

- It is important that the hypothesis space be appropriate for the task at hand
- For example, if the observations have a linear input/output relationship, it is best to use a linear model
- However, if the observations have a non-linear input/output relationship, then a linear model will provide a poor explanation of the data
- On the other hand, if your hypothesis space is too large, then you may learn unnecessarily complicated hypotheses



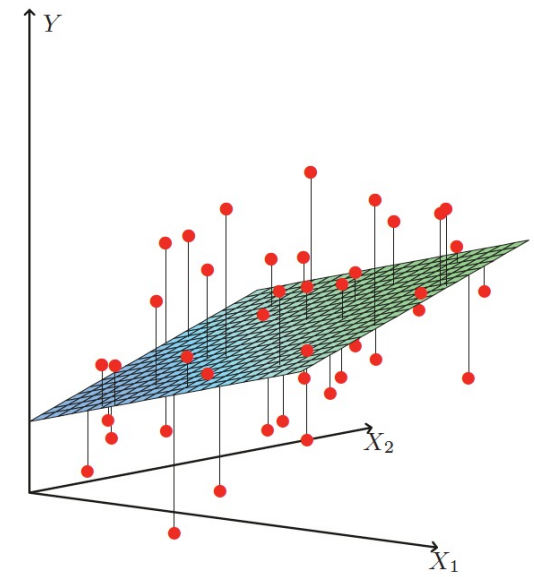
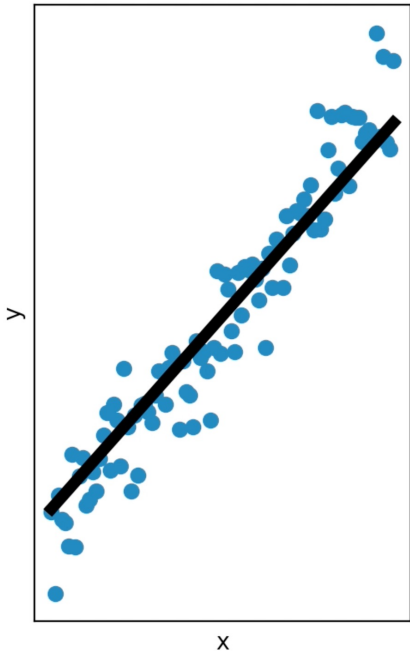
Regression and Classification

- Learn the relationship between the input $\mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^p$ and output $\mathbf{y} \in \mathbb{R}^q$
 - $\mathbf{y} = f(\mathbf{x})$
- The input $\mathbf{x}$ is also known as the **features** or **predictors**
- **Regression:** $\mathbf{y}$ is a continuous variable
- **Classification:** $\mathbf{y}$ is a categorical variable



Linear Regression

- Limits model of input/output relationship to a line
- Learning a function $f(\mathbf{x}, \boldsymbol{\theta})$ with parameters $\boldsymbol{\theta}$
 - Linear model $\boldsymbol{\theta} = [\mathbf{w}, b]$
- $f(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{w}, b) = \mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{x} + b = \sum_i w_i x_i + b$
- Examples (**may not truly be linear!**)
 - Yield of tomatoes as a function of health
 - Expression of a gene as a function of drug concentration



Linear Regression

- Assume 1 dimensional output
- Data
 - Inputs: $\mathbf{x}_1, \dots, \mathbf{x}_N$ where $\mathbf{x}_i \in \mathbb{R}^{p \times 1}$
 - Outputs: $y_1, \dots, y_N$ where $y_i \in \mathbb{R}$
- Data matrix
 - $\mathbf{X} \in \mathbb{R}^{N \times p}$
 - The i^{th} row contains example $\mathbf{x}_i$
- Vector of outputs
 - $\mathbf{y} \in \mathbb{R}^{N \times 1}$
- Parameters
 - $\mathbf{w} \in \mathbb{R}^{p \times 1}$ (weights)
 - $b \in \mathbb{R}$ (biases)
- Loss
 - $\mathcal{L}(\boldsymbol{\theta}) = \sum_n (y_n - f(\mathbf{x}, \boldsymbol{\theta}))^2$

Linear Regression: Analytical Solution

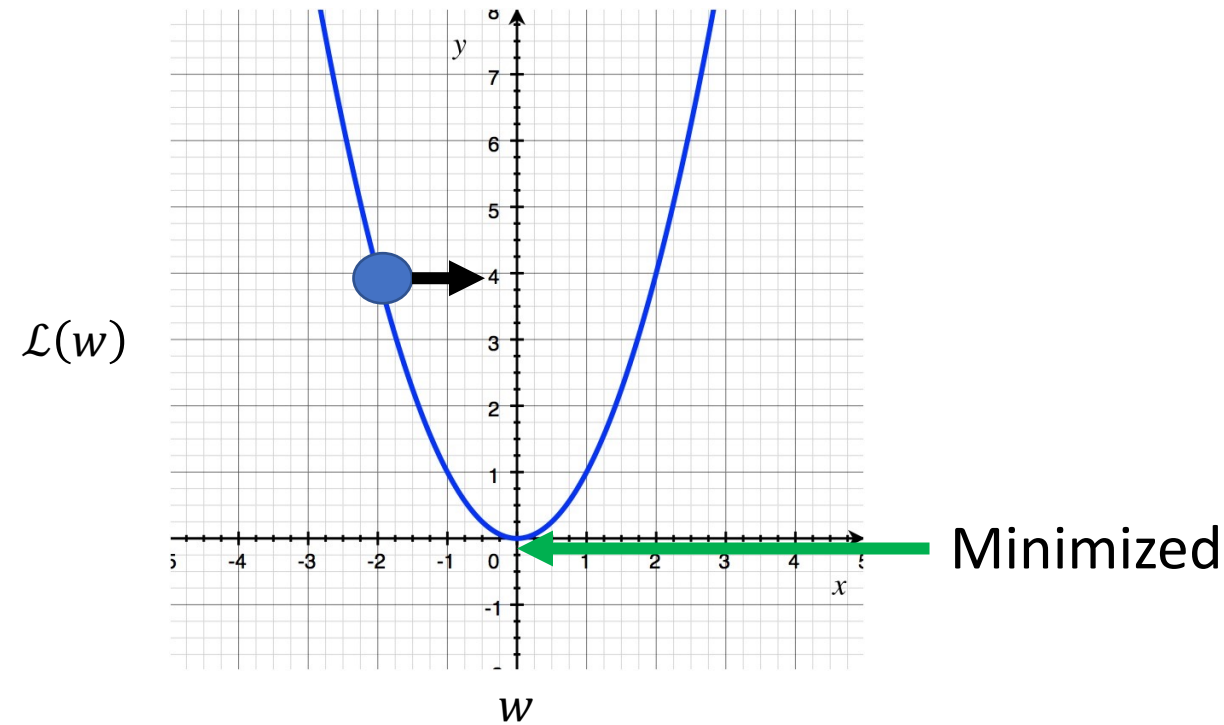
- $\mathcal{L}(\boldsymbol{\theta}) = \sum_n (y_n - f(\mathbf{x}, \boldsymbol{\theta}))^2 = ||\mathbf{X}\mathbf{w} - \mathbf{y}||_2^2$
- $\nabla_{\boldsymbol{\theta}} \mathcal{L}(\boldsymbol{\theta}) = 2\mathbf{X}^T (\mathbf{X}\mathbf{w} - \mathbf{y}) = 0$
- $\mathbf{w}^* = (\mathbf{X}^T \mathbf{X})^{-1} \mathbf{X}^T \mathbf{y}$
- Say there is no analytical solution, what kind of problem can this be posed as?
 - Optimization problem
 - We can do something similar to hill-climbing search where we want to minimize the loss

Linear Regression: Gradient Descent

- $\mathcal{L}(\boldsymbol{\theta}) = \frac{1}{2n} \sum_n (y_n - f(\mathbf{x}, \boldsymbol{\theta}))^2$
- Gradient – A vector of partial derivatives
 - $\nabla_{\boldsymbol{\theta}} \mathcal{L}(\boldsymbol{\theta}) = \left[\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}(\boldsymbol{\theta})}{\partial \theta_0}, \dots, \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}(\boldsymbol{\theta})}{\partial \theta_{p+1}} \right]$
 - $\mathbf{w} = \mathbf{w} - \alpha \nabla_{\boldsymbol{\theta}} \mathcal{L}(\boldsymbol{\theta})$
- Where α is the **learning rate**
 - This determines how big of a step we take in that direction

Gradient Descent: 1D Example

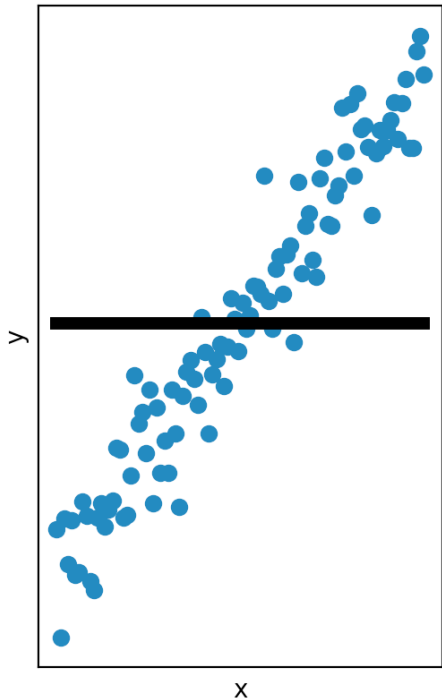
- One dimensional example
- $\mathcal{L}(w) = w^2$
- $\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}(w)}{\partial w} = 2w$



Linear Regression: 1D with No Bias

- $y_n = 3x + \epsilon_n$
- $\epsilon_n \sim \mathcal{N}(0, 0.5)$
- $f(x_n, w) = wx_n$

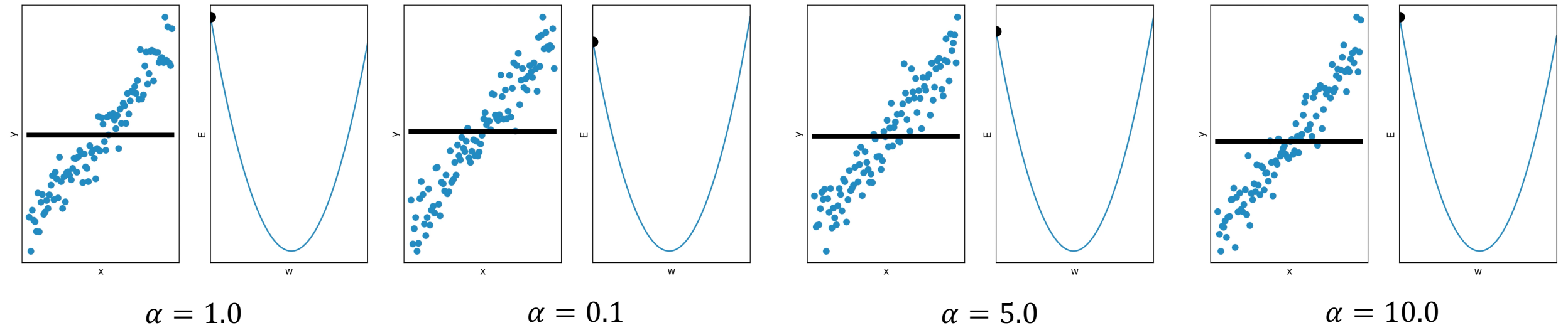
- $\mathcal{L}(w) = \frac{1}{2n} \sum_n (y_n - wx_n)^2$
- What is $\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}(w)}{\partial w}$?
- $\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}(w)}{\partial w} = -\frac{1}{n} \sum_n (y_n - wx_n) x_n$



Linear Regression: 1D with No Bias

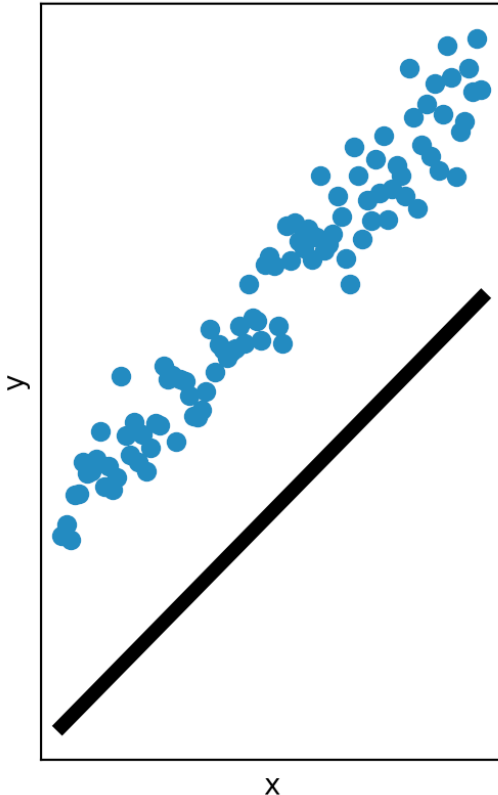
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- $\mathcal{L}(w) = \frac{1}{2n} \sum_n (y_n - wx_n)^2$
- $\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}(w)}{\partial w} = -\frac{1}{n} \sum_n (y_n - wx_n) x_n$
- $w = w - \alpha \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}(w)}{\partial w}$



Linear Regression: 1D with Bias

- $y_n = 3x + 3 + \epsilon_n$
- $\epsilon_n \sim \mathcal{N}(0, 0.5)$
- $f(x_n, w, b) = wx_n + b$

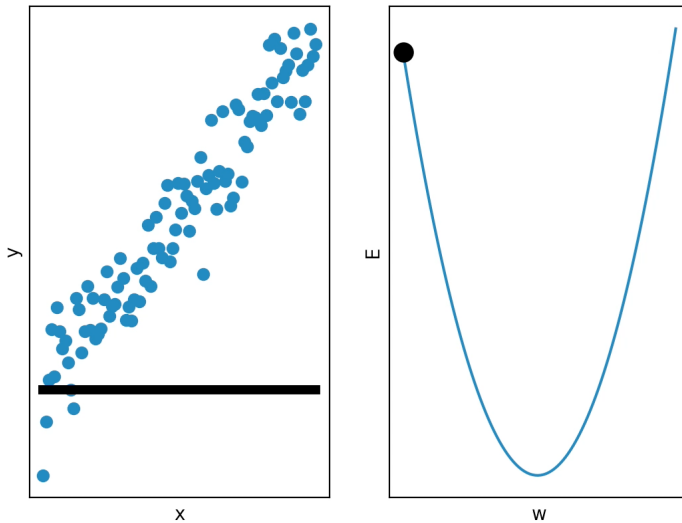


- $\mathcal{L}(w, b) = \frac{1}{2n} \sum_n (y_n - (wx_n + b))^2$
- What is $\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}(w, b)}{\partial w}$ and $\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}(w, b)}{\partial b}$?
- $\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}(w, b)}{\partial w} = -\frac{1}{n} \sum_n (y_n - (wx_n + b)) x_n$
- $\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}(w, b)}{\partial b} = -\frac{1}{n} \sum_n (y_n - (wx_n + b))$

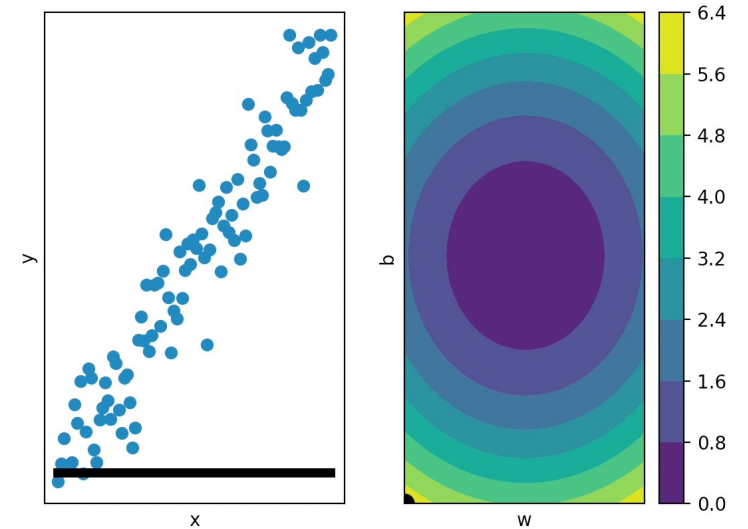
Linear Regression: 1D with Bias

- $y_n = 3x + 3 + \epsilon_n$
- $\epsilon_n \sim \mathcal{N}(0, 0.5)$
- $f(x_n, w, b) = wx_n + b$

- $\mathcal{L}(w, b) = \frac{1}{2n} \sum_n (y_n - (wx_n + b))^2$
- $\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}(w, b)}{\partial w} = -\frac{1}{n} \sum_n (y_n - (wx_n + b)) x_n$
- $\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}(w, b)}{\partial b} = -\frac{1}{n} \sum_n (y_n - (wx_n + b))$
- $w = w - \alpha \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}(w, b)}{\partial w}$
- $b = b - \alpha \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}(w, b)}{\partial b}$



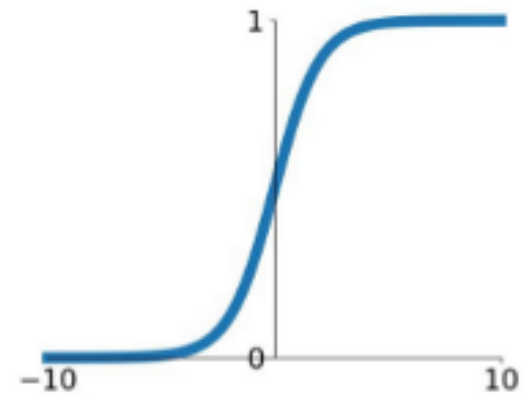
No bias $\alpha = 0.5$



Bias $\alpha = 0.5$

Binary Classification

- We would like to differentiate between 2 classes
 - $P(y = 1|\mathbf{x})$
 - $P(y = 0|\mathbf{x}) = 1 - P(y = 1|\mathbf{x})$
- If values are guaranteed to be positive and have a sum greater than zero, then we can obtain a probability by dividing each value by their sum
 - Ensures normalized values are positive and sum to 1 (obeys the laws of probability)
- We can do this by exponentiating the values $\mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{x}$
 - $$P(y = 1|\mathbf{x}) = \frac{e^{w_1^T x}}{e^{w_1^T x} + e^{w_0^T x}} = \frac{1}{1 + e^{(w_0 - w_1)^T x}} = \frac{1}{1 + e^{-w^T x}}$$
- This gives us the logistic function
 - $\sigma(a) = \frac{1}{1 + e^{-a}}$
 - $\frac{\partial}{\partial x} \sigma(x) = \frac{\partial}{\partial x} \frac{1}{1 + e^{-x}} = \sigma(x)(1 - \sigma(x)) = \sigma(x)\sigma(-x)$



Likelihood

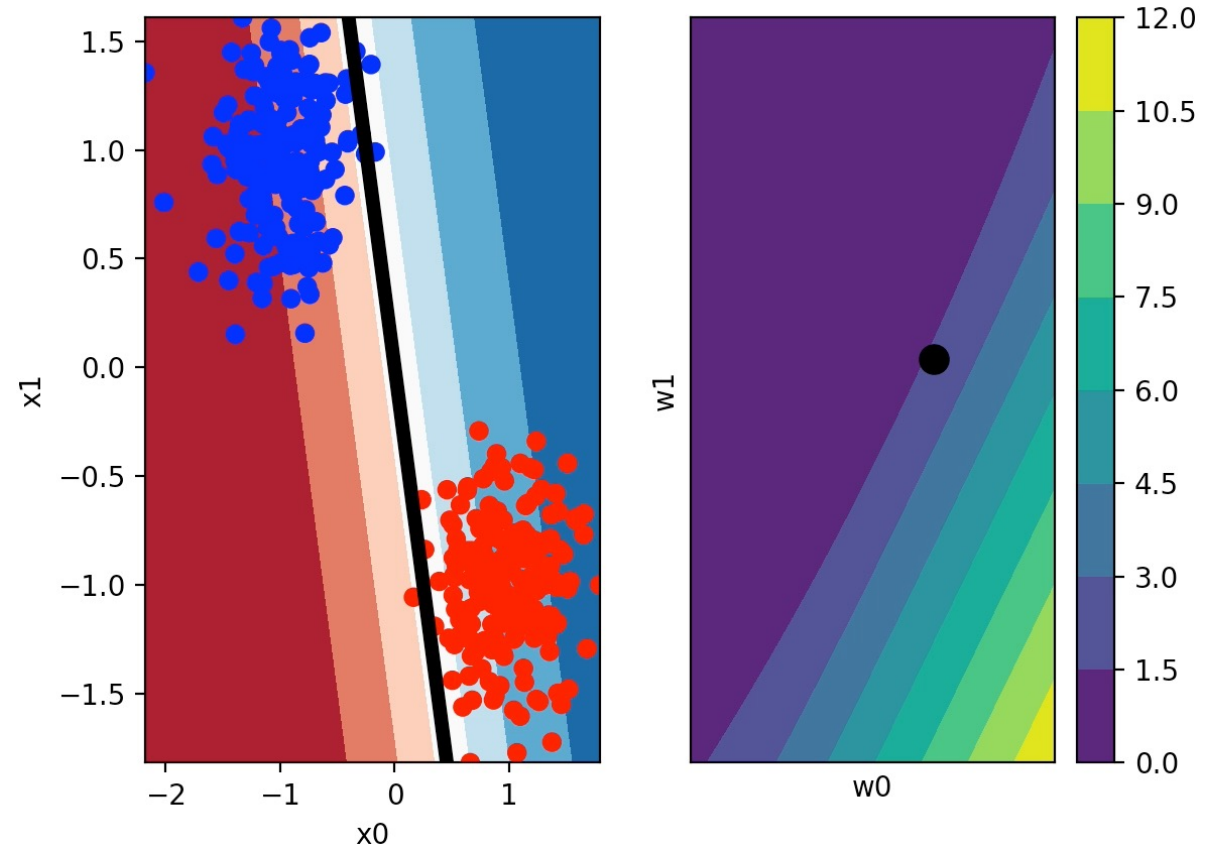
- Likelihood: the joint probability of the observed data given as a function of the parameters of a statistical model
 - Observed data: $((\mathbf{x}_1, y_1), (\mathbf{x}_2, y_2), \dots, (\mathbf{x}_N, y_N))$
 - Parameters: $\mathbf{w}$
- $l = \prod_{i=1}^N P(y_i | \mathbf{x}_i; \mathbf{w})$
- $P(y_i | \mathbf{x}_i; \mathbf{w})$ if $y_i = 1$
 - $\frac{1}{1 + e^{-\mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{x}_i}}$
- $P(y_i | \mathbf{x}_i; \mathbf{w})$ if $y_i = 0$
 - $1 - \frac{1}{1 + e^{-\mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{x}_i}}$

Maximum Likelihood

- We would like to find $\mathbf{w}$ that maximizes the likelihood
- $l = \prod_{i=1}^N P(y_i | \mathbf{x}_i; \mathbf{w})$
- For numerical stability, we take the log of the likelihood
- $ll = \sum_{i=1}^N \log P(y_i | \mathbf{x}_i; \mathbf{w})$
- $= \sum_{i=1}^N y_i \log P(y_i = 1 | \mathbf{x}_i; \mathbf{w}) + (1 - y_i) \log(1 - P(y_i = 1 | \mathbf{x}_i; \mathbf{w}))$
- $= \sum_{i=1}^N y_i \log\left(\frac{1}{1 + e^{-\mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{x}_i}}\right) + (1 - y_i) \log\left(1 - \frac{1}{1 + e^{-\mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{x}_i}}\right)$
- $\frac{\partial L(\mathbf{w})}{\partial w_i} = - \sum_{i=1}^N (y - \sigma(\mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{x})) x_i = \sum_{i=1}^N (\sigma(\mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{x}) - y) x_i$

Logistic Regression: Gradient Descent

- The input is two dimensional
- $P(y = 1|\mathbf{x}) = \frac{1}{1+e^{-(w_0x_0+w_1x_1)}}$
- No bias b
- We can plot the **decision boundary** between the positive and negative class as when $w_0x_0 + w_1x_1$ is 0
 $P(y = 1|\mathbf{x}) = 0.5$
 - $w_0x_0 + w_1x_1 = 0$
 - $x_1 = -w_0x_0/w_1$



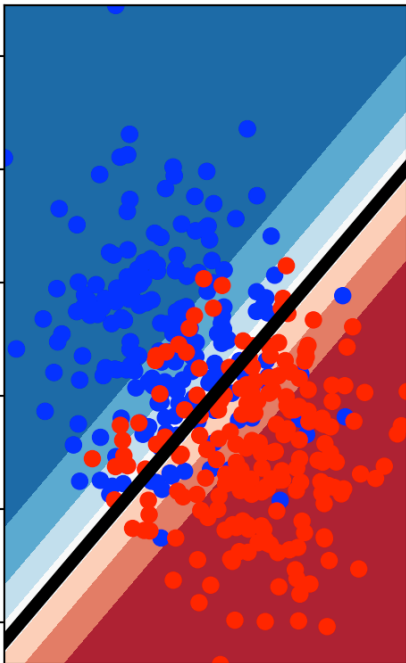
Classes Cannot Always be Perfectly Separated

- In many real-world applications, the classes are not perfectly separated
 - Data could be inherently noisy
 - The predictors may not be informative enough
 - The machine learning model may not be expressive enough
 - The training algorithm used may not be appropriate
- What could happen if your data contains more of one class than another?
 - For example, you want to learn if someone has a rare disease from medical tests
 - Since most people do not have the disease, most examples are of people that do not have the disease

Balanced vs Unbalanced Data

- One should always ensure that they balance their datasets!
 - Every gradient step can sample an equal number of states from each class
 - Or weight the contributions to the loss for each class to account for data being unbalanced
- Is this enough?

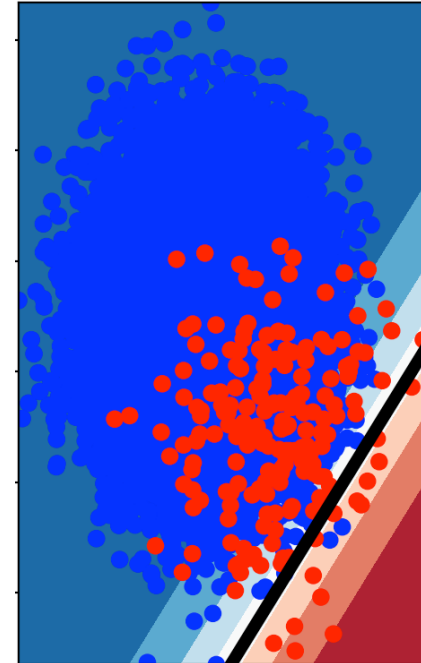
Decision boundary
with balanced data



$$P(y = 1|\mathbf{x}) = \frac{1}{1 + e^{-(w_0x_0 + w_1x_1 + b)}}$$

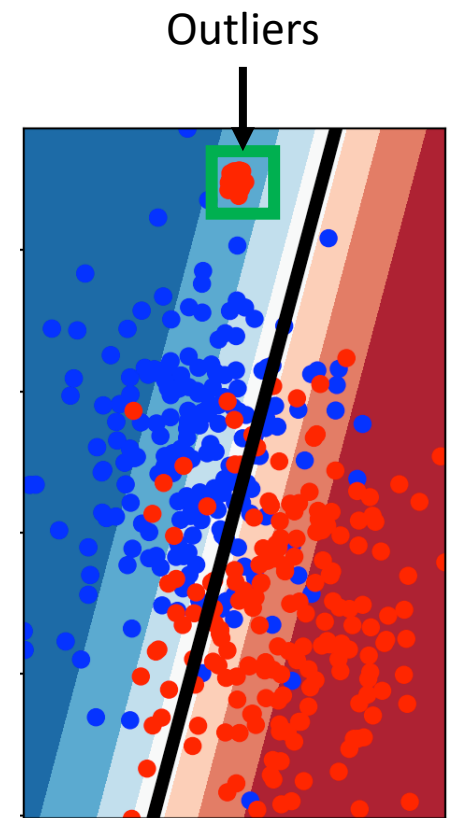
Has bias b

Decision boundary
with unbalanced data



Balanced vs Unbalanced Data

- Even if the classes themselves are balanced, there may be outliers within those classes
- If these are not explicitly accounted for, the model may ignore them entirely
- For example, a rare disease that affects older people much more than children

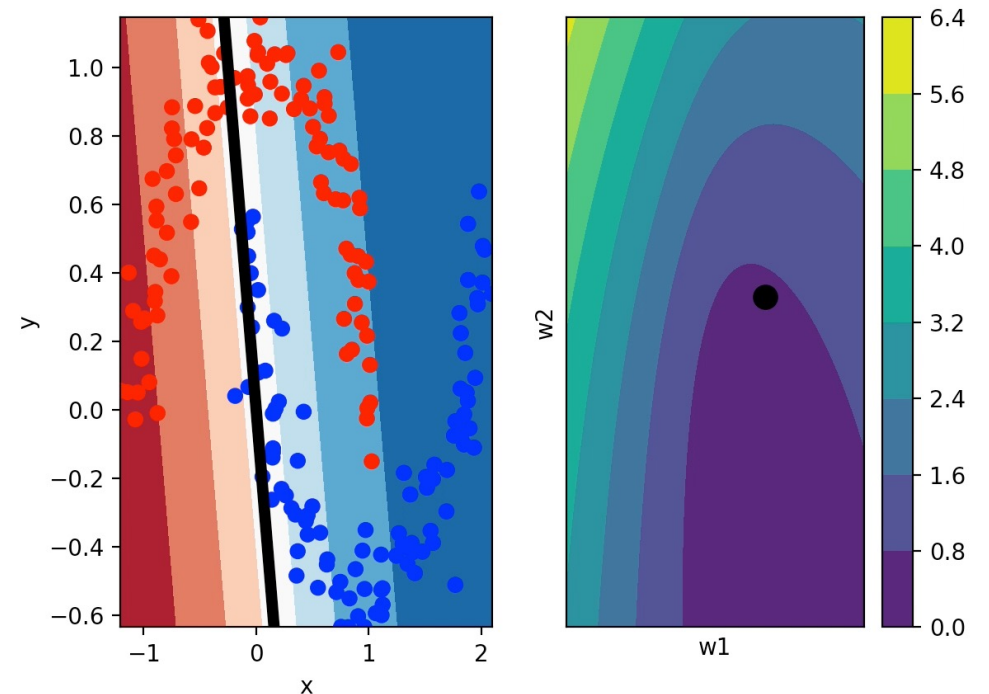
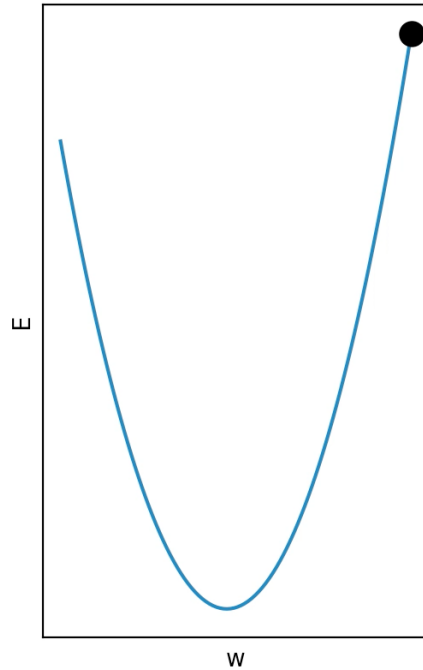
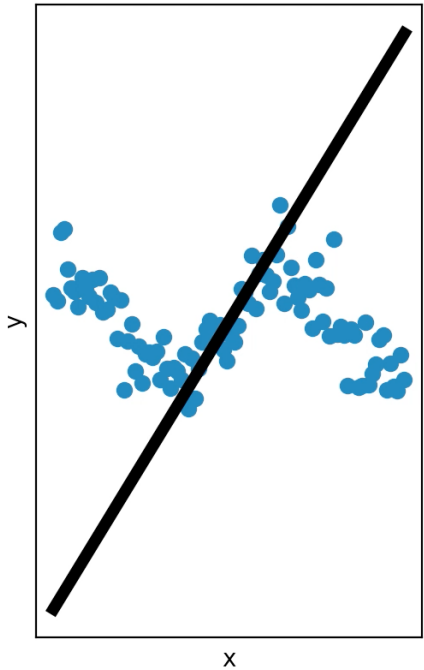


Softmax Regression

- If we have more than two classes, we can generalize logistic regression
- We got the logistic function from this equation $\frac{e^{w_1^T x}}{e^{w_1^T x} + e^{w_0^T x}}$
- If we have C classes, the probability of class i is $\frac{e^{w_i^T x}}{\sum_{j=1}^C e^{w_j^T x}}$
 - Known as a **softmax** function

Linear Models: Limitations

- Many interesting problems have a non-linear relationship between the inputs and outputs
- Linear models cannot handle these cases



Outline

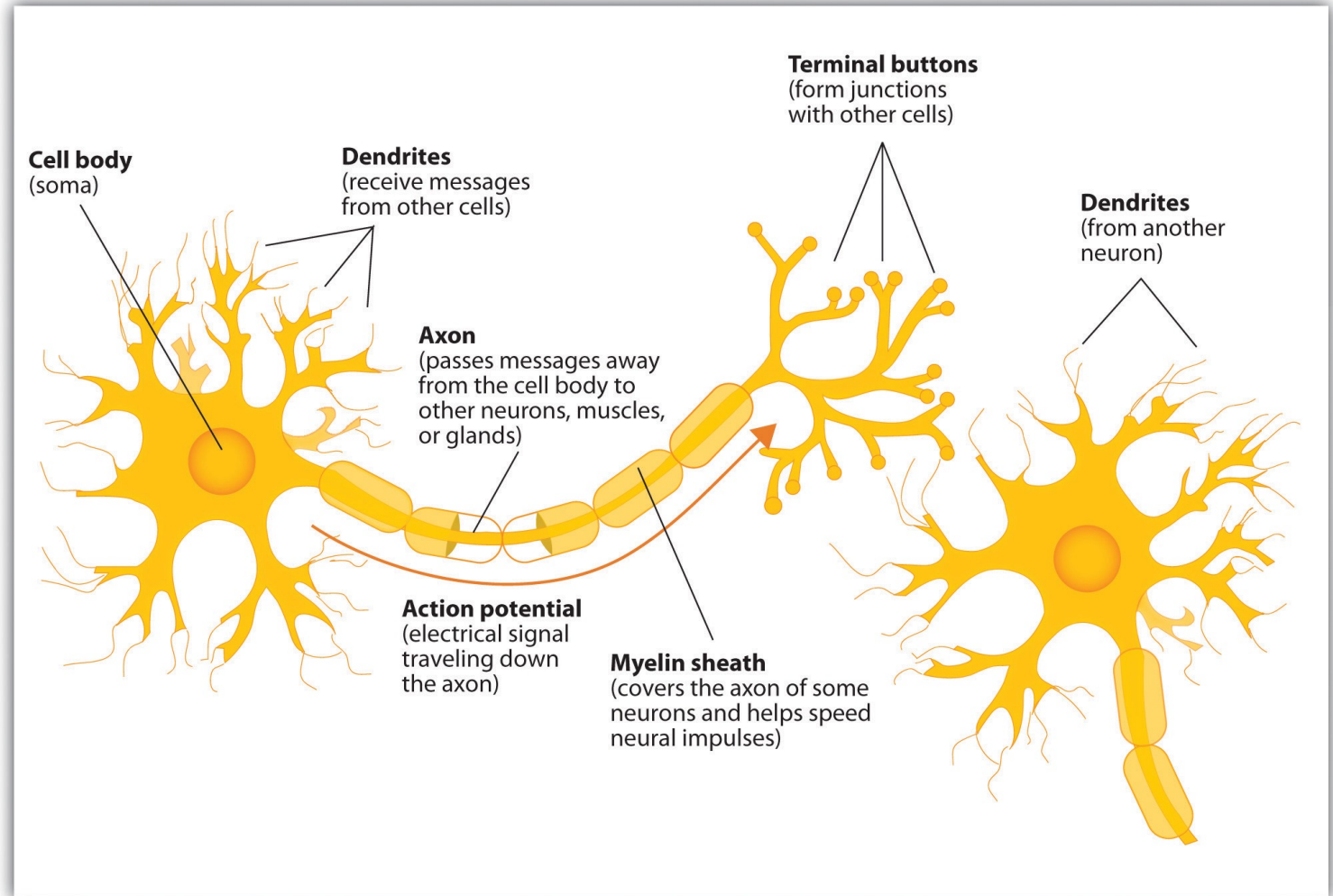
- Linear models
 - Linear regression
 - Logistic regression
- Neural networks
 - [Architecture and backpropagation](#)
 - Deep neural networks
 - Overfitting
 - Optimization

Machine Learning

- There are many different machine learning methods
 - Linear models
 - Deep neural networks
 - Support vector machines
 - Decision trees
 - K-nearest neighbors
- The type of model to use depends on your data
- Deep learning is often the best out of these methods when the data
 - High-dimensional
 - Low-level
 - Plentiful
 - Has a non-linear relationship between the input and the output

Artificial Neural Networks

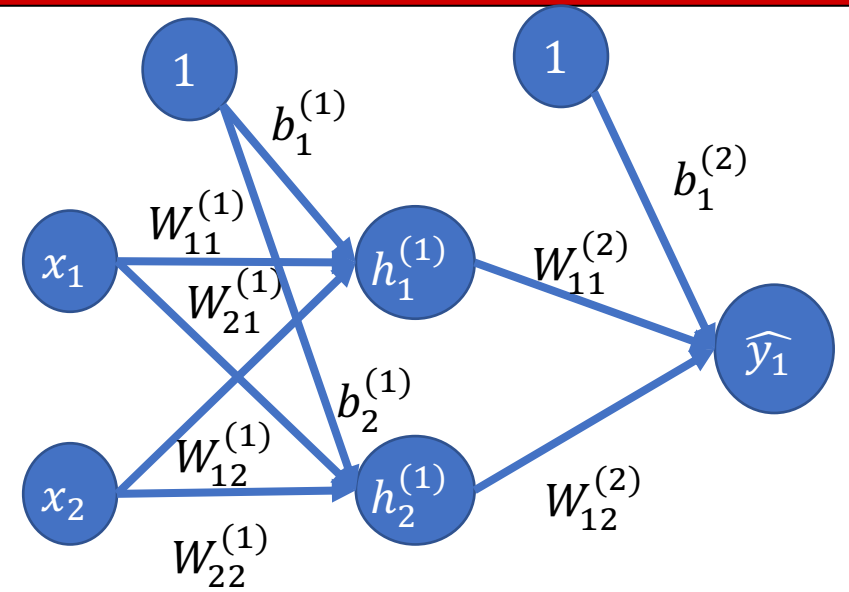
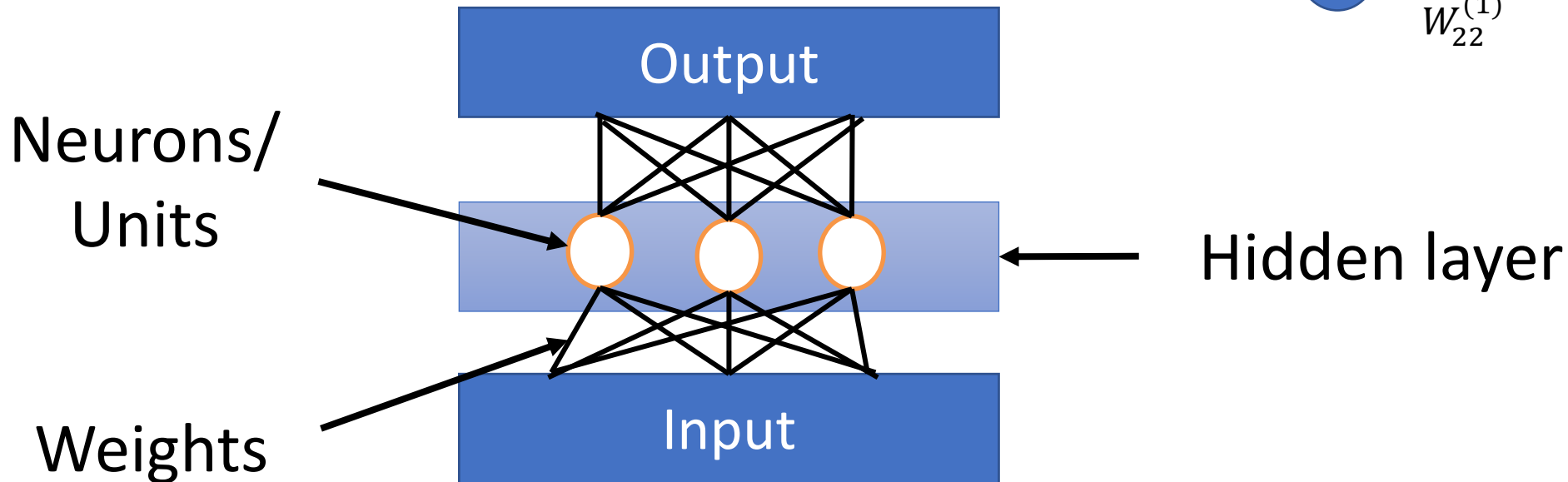
- Inspired from biological neural networks
- Far from an exact model
- The main parallels are
 - Dendrites (inputs)
 - Action potential (activation function)
 - Axon terminals (outputs)



A biological neuron

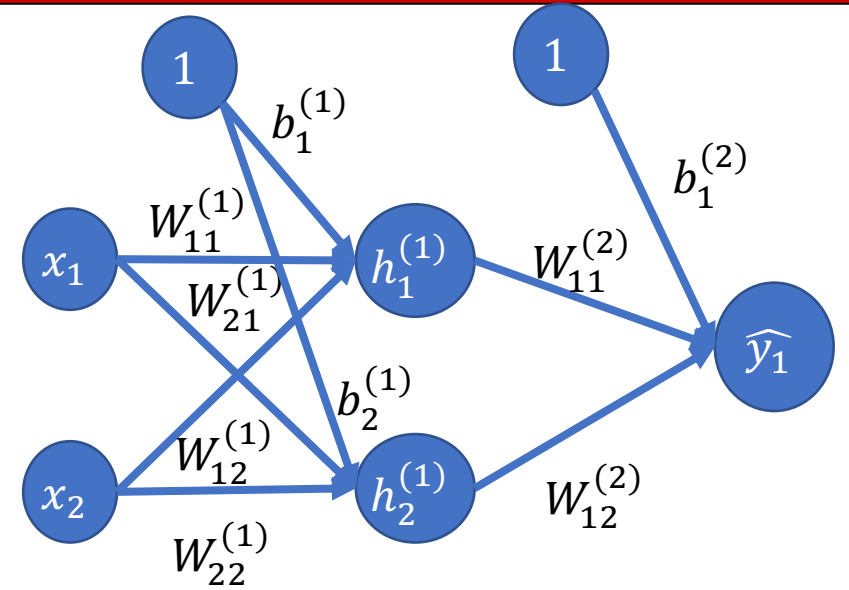
Neural Networks

- $f(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{w}) = \mathbf{W}^{(2)} \sigma(\mathbf{W}^{(1)} \mathbf{x})$
 - $\mathbf{h}^{(1)} = \sigma(\mathbf{W}^{(1)} \mathbf{x})$
 - $f(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{w}) = \mathbf{W}^{(2)} \mathbf{h}^{(1)}$
- Where σ is some non-linear function



Quick Quiz: Linear Activation Functions

- $f(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{w}) = \mathbf{W}^{(2)} \sigma(\mathbf{W}^{(1)} \mathbf{x})$
 - $\mathbf{h}^{(1)} = \sigma(\mathbf{W}^{(1)} \mathbf{x})$
 - $f(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{w}) = \mathbf{W}^{(2)} \mathbf{h}^{(1)}$
- What if σ is a linear function?



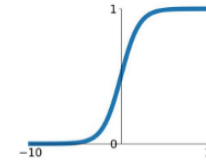
- The resulting function would also be linear. This is true no matter how deep the network is.

Backpropagation: Activation Functions

- Allow neural network to learn non-linear functions
- Logistic (Sigmoid)
 - $\sigma(x) = \frac{1}{1+e^{-x}}$
 - $\sigma'(x) = \sigma(x)(1 - \sigma(x))$
- Rectified Linear Unit (ReLU)
 - $\sigma(x) = \max(0, x)$
 - $\sigma'(x) = 0$ if $x \leq 0$
 - $\sigma'(x) = 1$ if $x > 0$
 - Derivative undefined at zero but does not matter in practice
- Activation functions can also be parameterized and learned through gradient descent

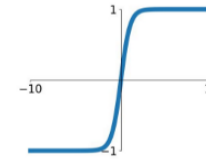
Sigmoid

$$\sigma(x) = \frac{1}{1+e^{-x}}$$



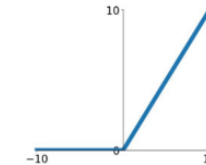
tanh

$$\tanh(x)$$



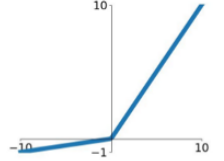
ReLU

$$\max(0, x)$$



Leaky ReLU

$$\max(0.1x, x)$$

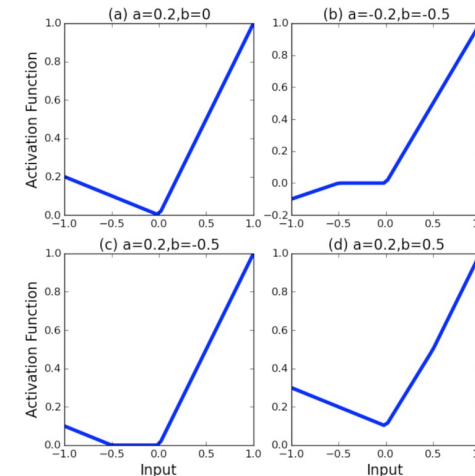
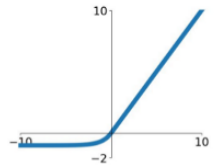


Maxout

$$\max(w_1^T x + b_1, w_2^T x + b_2)$$

ELU

$$\begin{cases} x & x \geq 0 \\ \alpha(e^x - 1) & x < 0 \end{cases}$$



**Adaptive
piecewise
linear units**

Neural Networks: Universal Function Approximation

- Given enough hidden units, neural networks can approximate any function with arbitrary precision
- Cannot guarantee convergence

Backpropagation

- We do gradient descent via **backpropagation**
 - Just the application of the chain rule

- $\mathbf{h}^{(1)} = \sigma(\mathbf{W}^{(1)}\mathbf{x})$

- $h_j^{(1)} = \sigma(\sum W_{jk}^{(1)} x_k)$

- $f(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{w}) = \mathbf{W}^{(2)}\mathbf{h}^{(1)} = \hat{\mathbf{y}}$

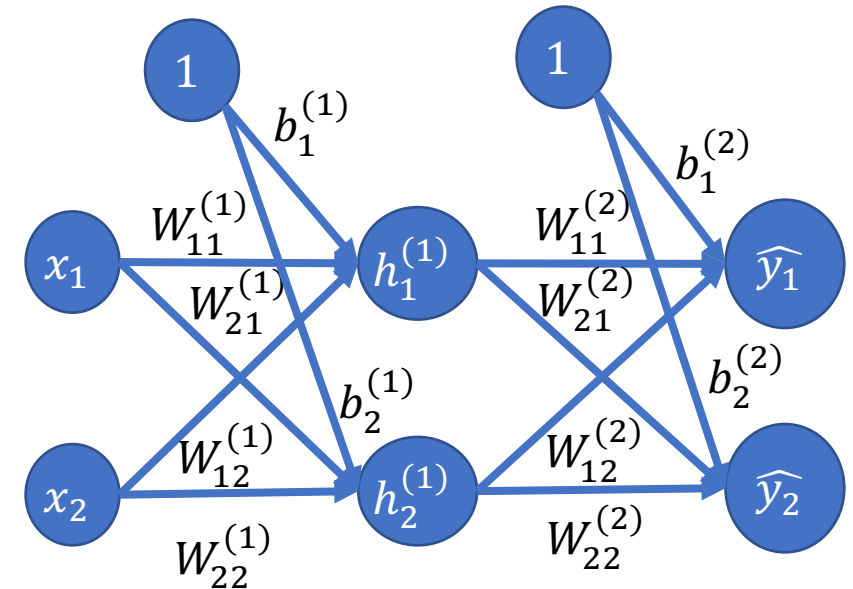
- $\hat{y}_i = \sum_j W_{ij}^{(2)} h_j^{(1)}$

- $E(\mathbf{w}) = \frac{1}{2} \|\mathbf{y} - \hat{\mathbf{y}}\|_2^2 = \frac{1}{2} \|\mathbf{e}\|_2^2$

- $= \frac{1}{2} \sum_i (y_i - \hat{y}_i)^2 = \frac{1}{2} \sum_i e_i^2$

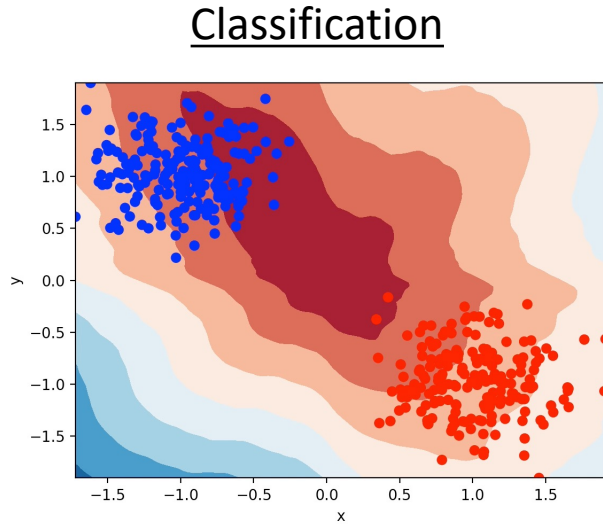
- $\frac{\partial E(\mathbf{w})}{\partial W_{ij}^{(2)}} = \frac{\partial E(\mathbf{w})}{\partial \mathbf{e}} \frac{\partial \mathbf{e}}{\partial \hat{\mathbf{y}}} \frac{\partial \hat{\mathbf{y}}}{\partial W_{ij}^{(2)}} = -(y_i - \hat{y}_i) h_j$

- $\frac{\partial E(\mathbf{w})}{\partial W_{jk}^{(1)}} = \frac{\partial E(\mathbf{w})}{\partial \mathbf{e}} \frac{\partial \mathbf{e}}{\partial \hat{\mathbf{y}}} \frac{\partial \hat{\mathbf{y}}}{\partial \mathbf{h}^{(1)}} \frac{\partial \mathbf{h}^{(1)}}{\partial W_{jk}^{(1)}} = \sum_i -(y_i - \hat{y}_i) W_{ij}^{(2)} \sigma'(\sum W_{jk}^{(1)} x_k) x_k$

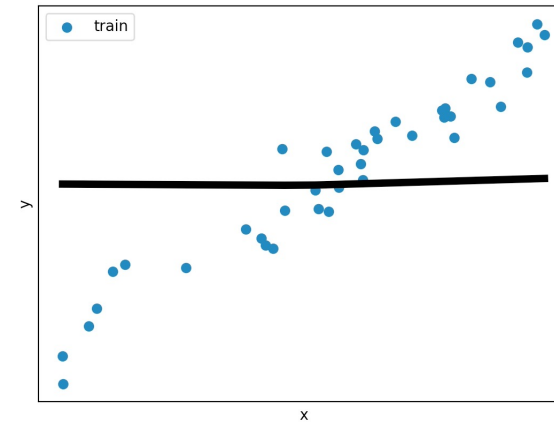


Neural Networks: Regression and Classification

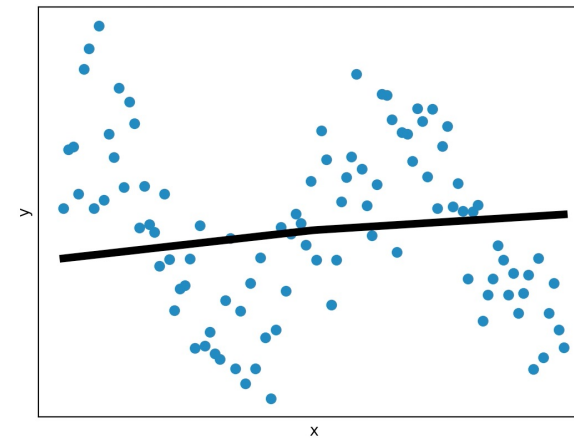
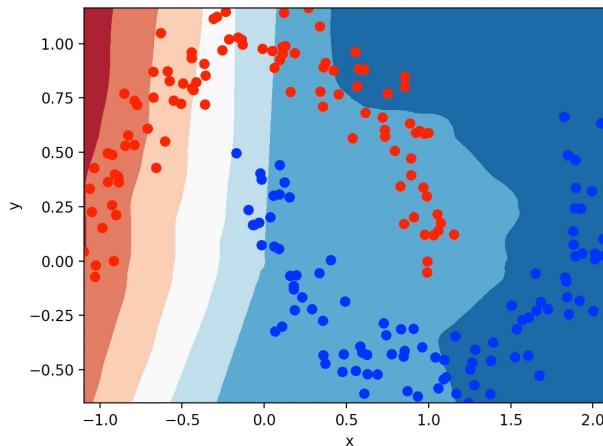
Linear



Regression



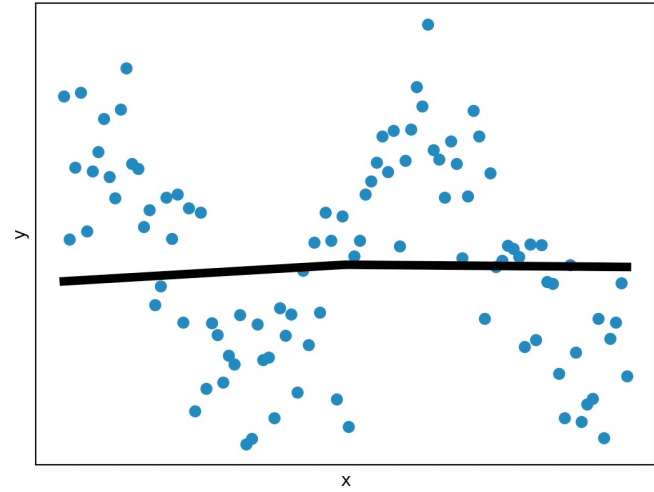
Non-Linear



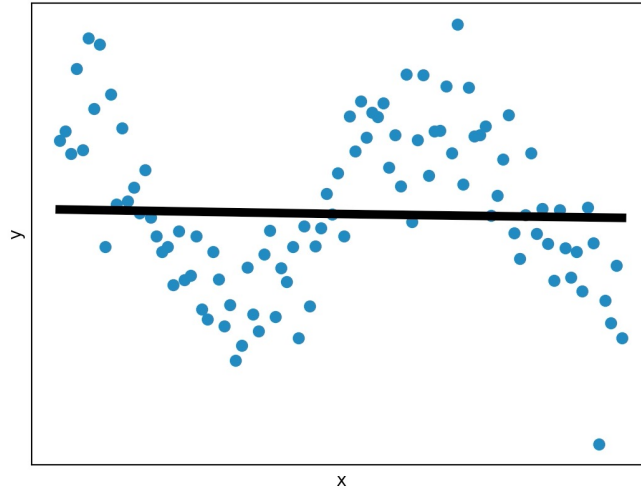
Hyperparameters

- **Parameters** are learned from the data
- **Hyperparameters** are set before training
- Learning rate
 - Defines how large the steps will be during gradient descent
 - Usually denoted by α
- Number of neurons
 - How “wide” the neural network is
- Many more!

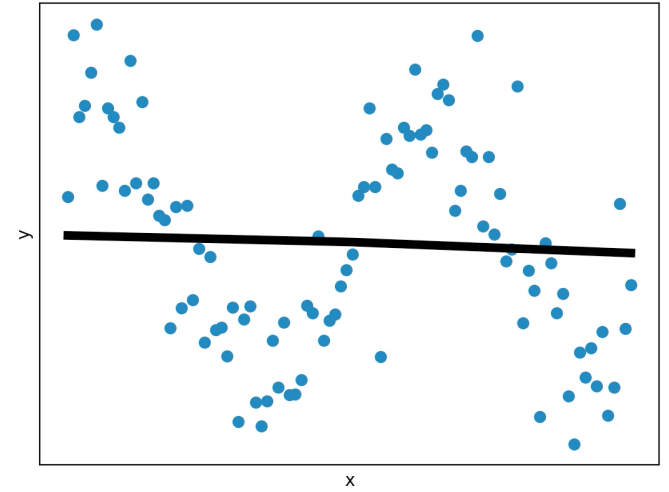
Quick Quiz: What are the Best Hyperparameters?



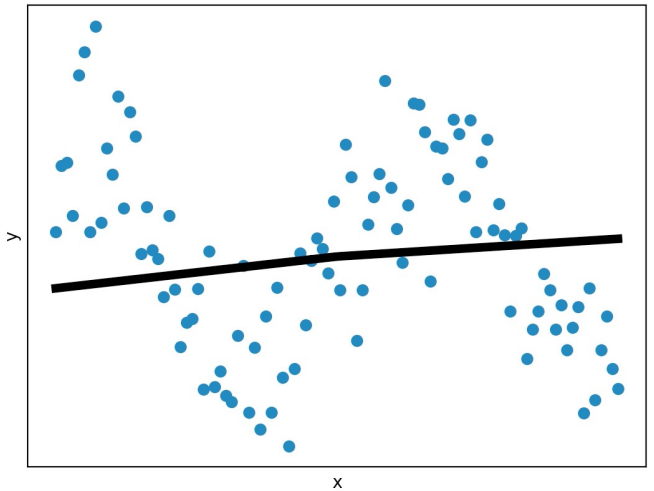
$\alpha = 0.1$, neurons = 100



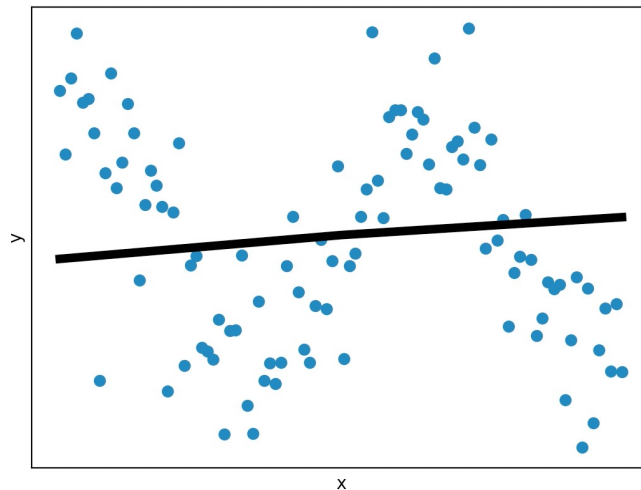
$\alpha = 0.25$, neurons = 100



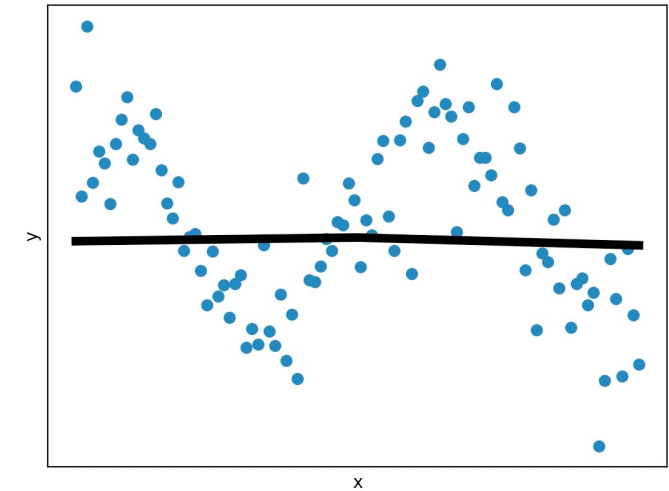
$\alpha = 0.75$, neurons = 100



$\alpha = 0.1$, neurons = 1000



$\alpha = 0.25$, neurons = 1000



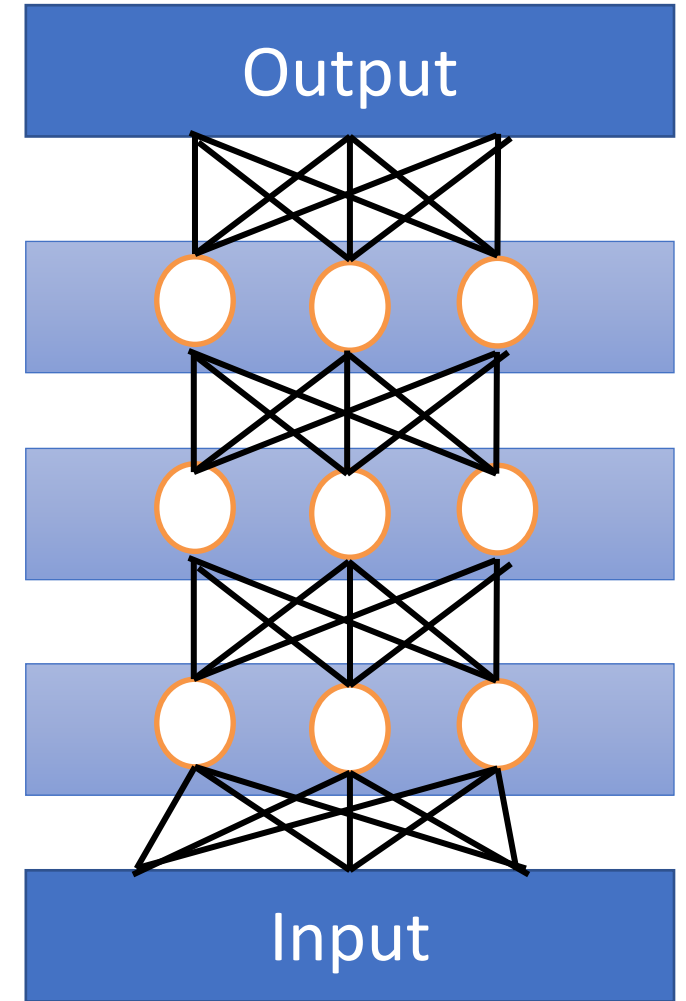
$\alpha = 0.75$, neurons = 1000

Outline

- Linear models
 - Linear regression
 - Logistic regression
- Neural networks
 - Architecture and backpropagation
 - Deep neural networks
 - Overfitting
 - Optimization

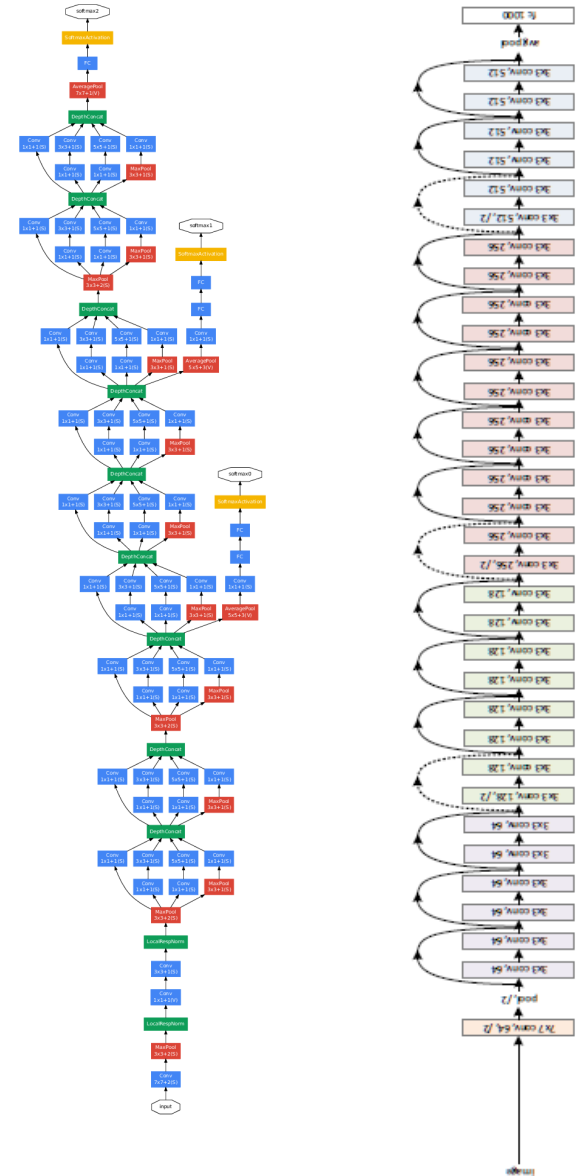
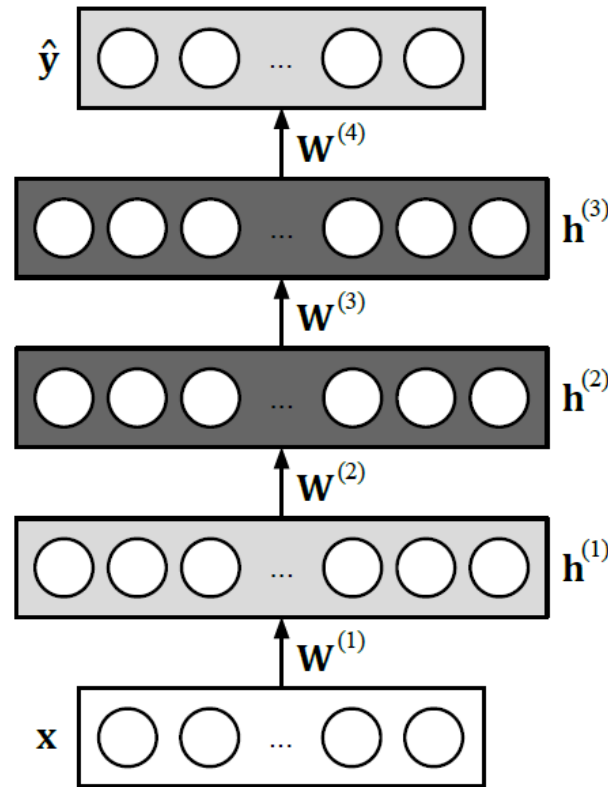
Deep Neural Networks

- Stack hidden layers to obtain a deep neural network
- “Deep learning allows computational models that are composed of multiple processing layers to learn representations of data with multiple levels of abstraction.”



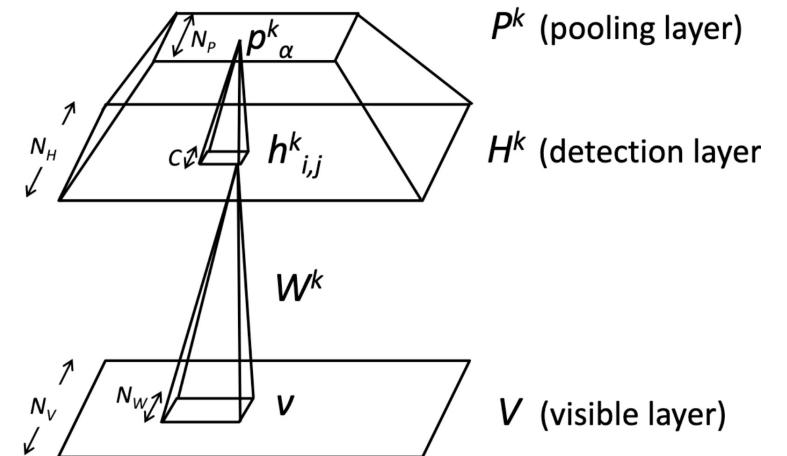
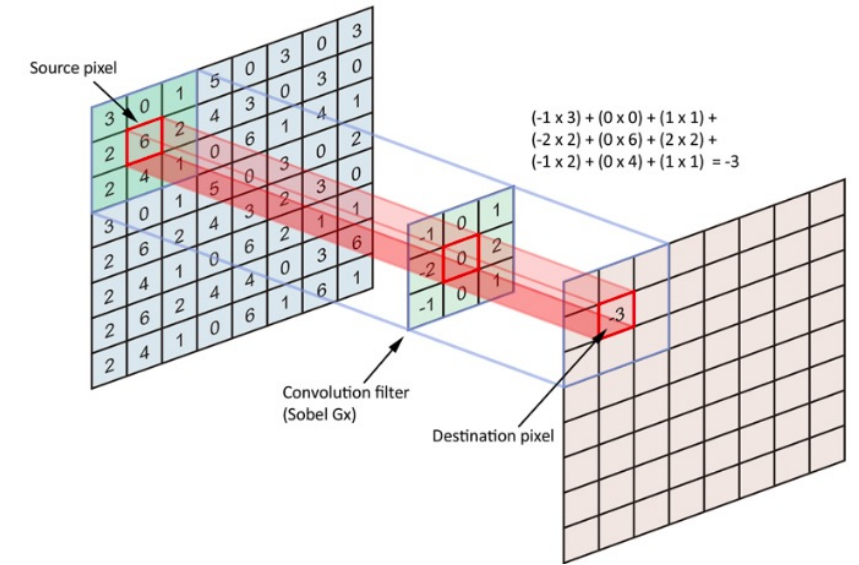
Deep Neural Networks

- There are a wide variety of ways one can create a deep neural network

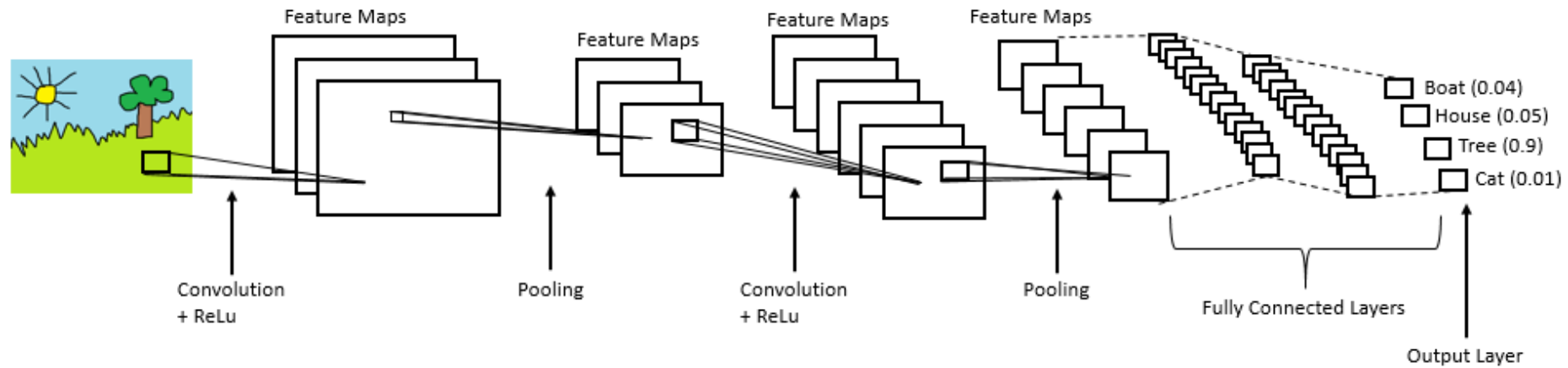


Convolution and Pooling

- We can design neural networks to take advantage of structured data, such as images
- **Convolution** helps to add translation invariance
 - Strong **inductive bias**
- **Pooling** shrinks the representation, allowing subsequent layers to focus on higher-level information and have a larger receptive field

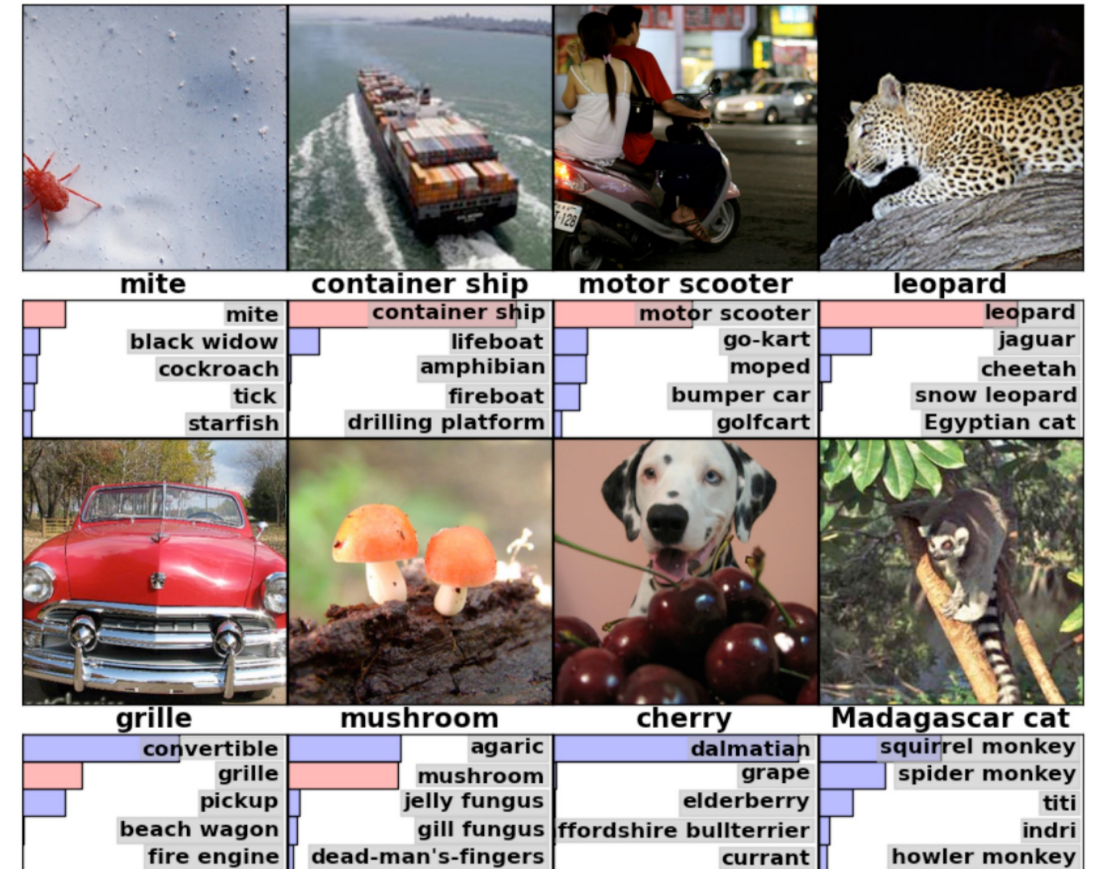


Convolution and Pooling



Convolution and Pooling

- Was central to the breakthrough on the Imagenet dataset

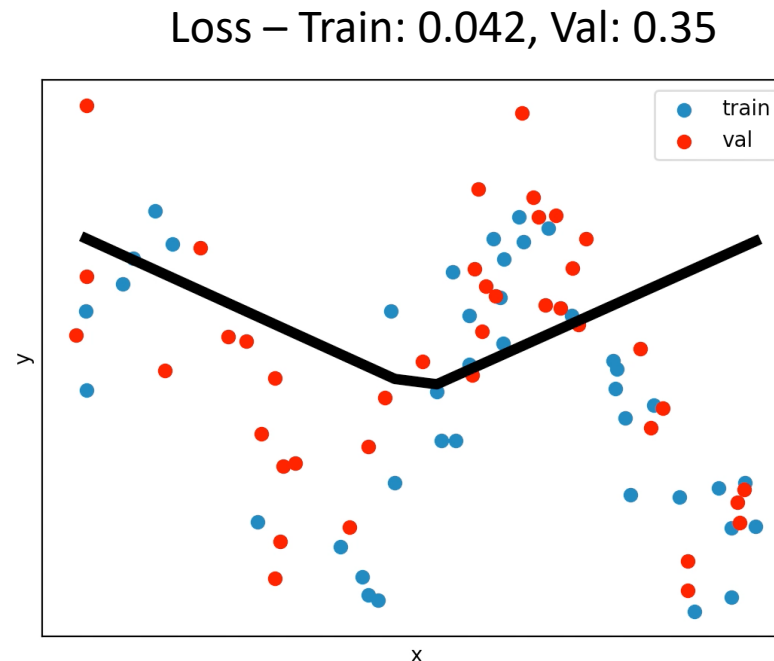


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Overfitting/Regularization

- **Training Dataset:** Used to train neural network
- **Validation Dataset:** Not used to train neural network. Used to determine how well neural network generalizes
- **Test Dataset:** Only for seeing the final performance of neural network. Not used for training or validation.

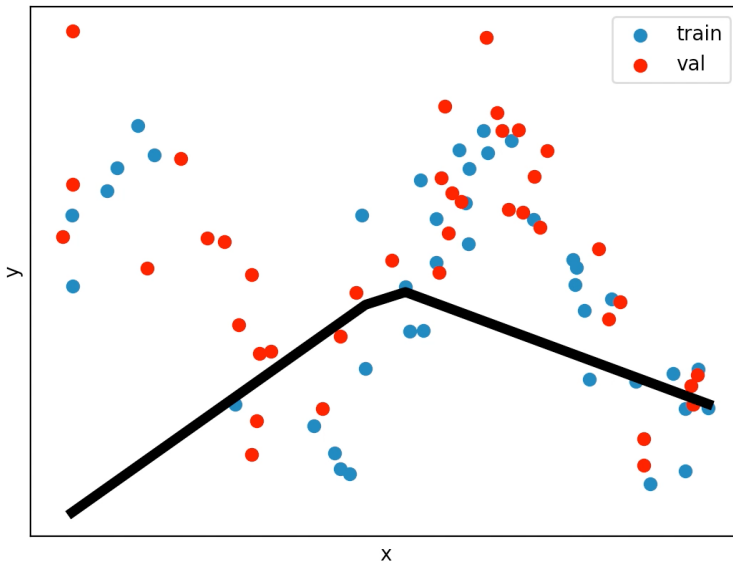


DNN 5 hidden layers and 500
neurons per layer

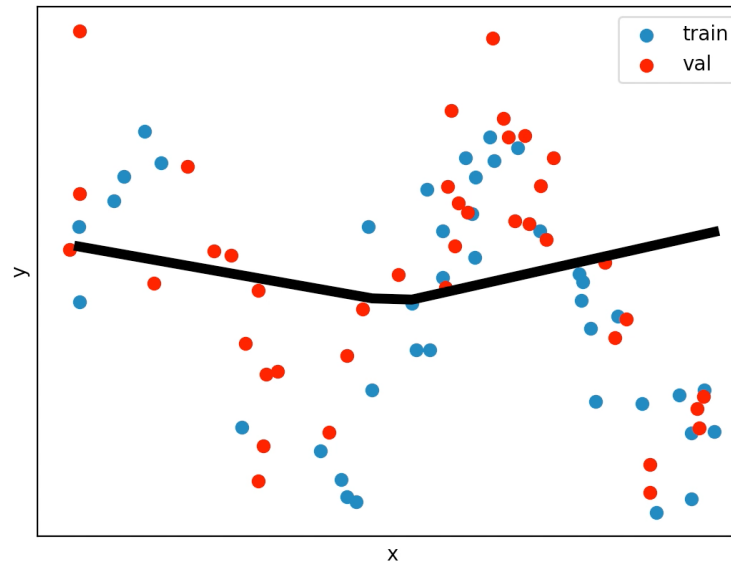
Regularization: Weight Regularization

- Weight regularization
 - $E(\mathbf{w}) = \frac{1}{2n} \sum_n ||\mathbf{y}_n - \hat{\mathbf{y}}_n||_2^2 + \lambda \sum_l \sum_i \sum_j W_{ij}^2$
 - Make the weights less “sensitive” to the input

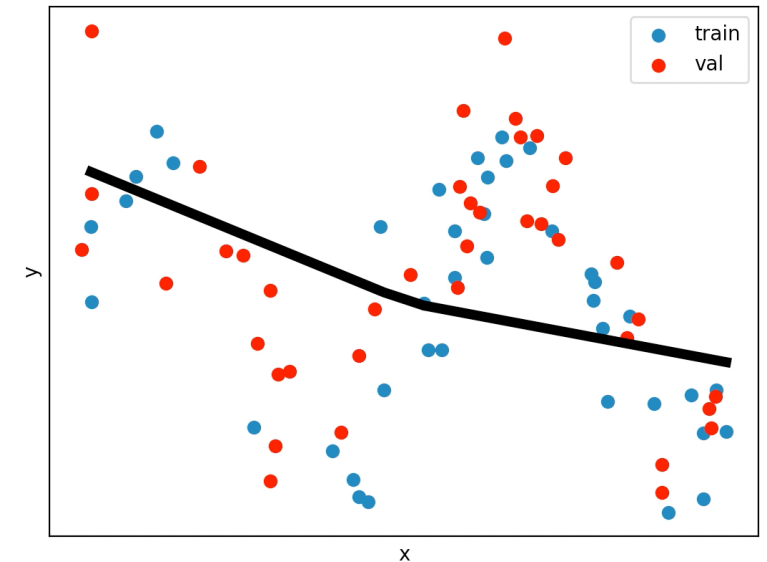
Loss – Train: 0.12, Val: 0.29, $\lambda = 0.01$



Loss – Train: 0.18, Val: 0.26, $\lambda = 0.05$



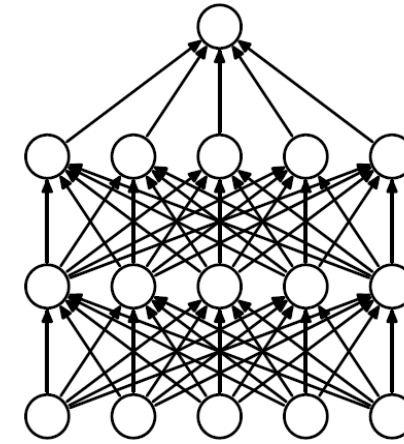
Loss – Train: 0.70, Val: 0.77, $\lambda = 0.2$



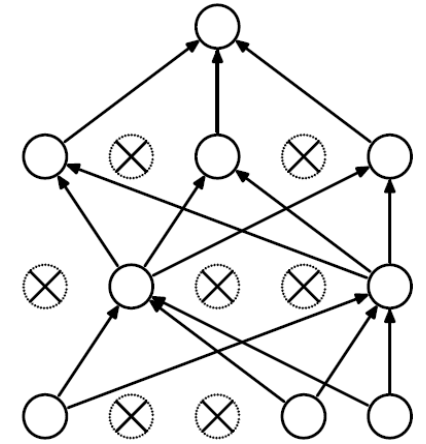
Overfitting/Regularization: Dropout

- Dropout

- Randomly drop connections between neurons during training

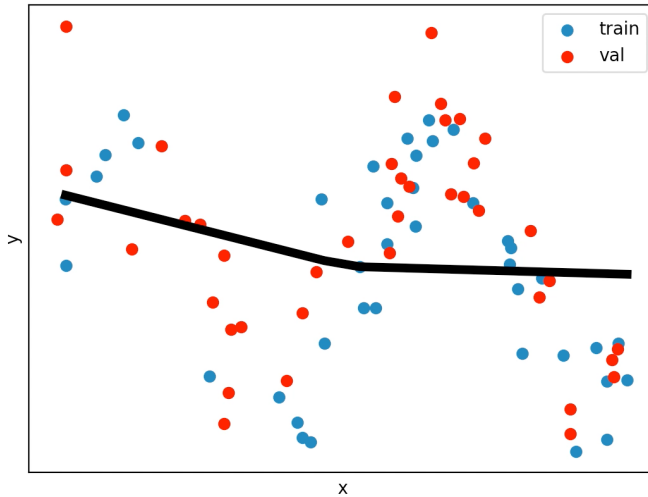


(a) Standard Neural Net

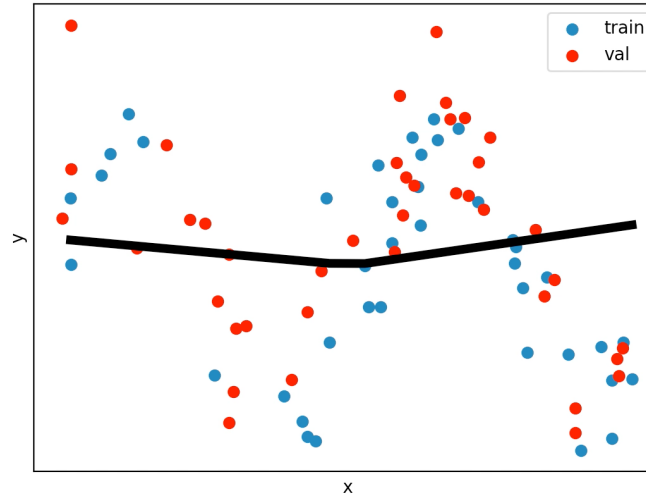


(b) After applying dropout.

Loss – Train: 0.23, Val: 0.25, $p = 0.5$



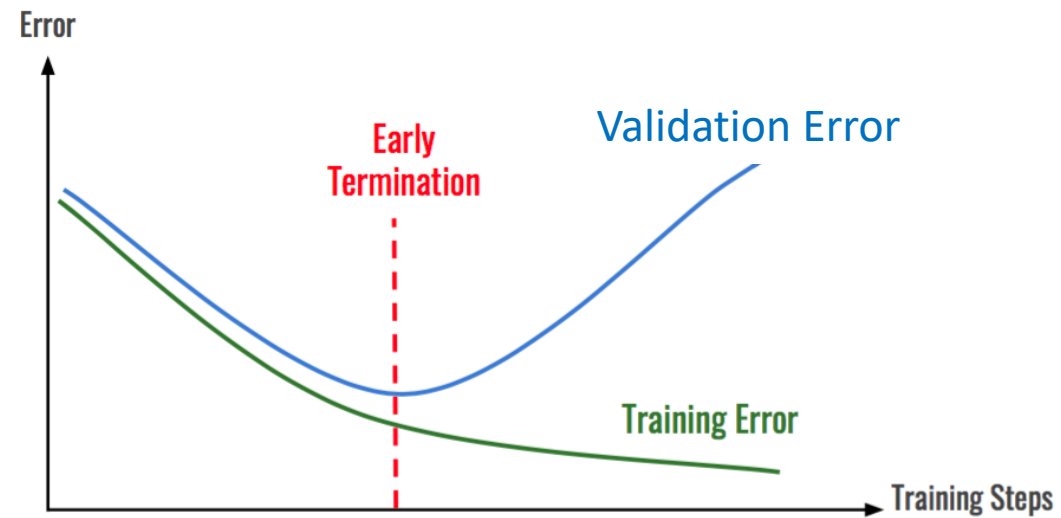
Loss – Train: 0.70, Val: 0.75, $p = 0.9$



Regularization: Add More Data

- Harder to overfit if there is more data
- Collect more data
- Augment current data
 - Rotations, flipping, translations
 - Adding noise

Overfitting/Regularization

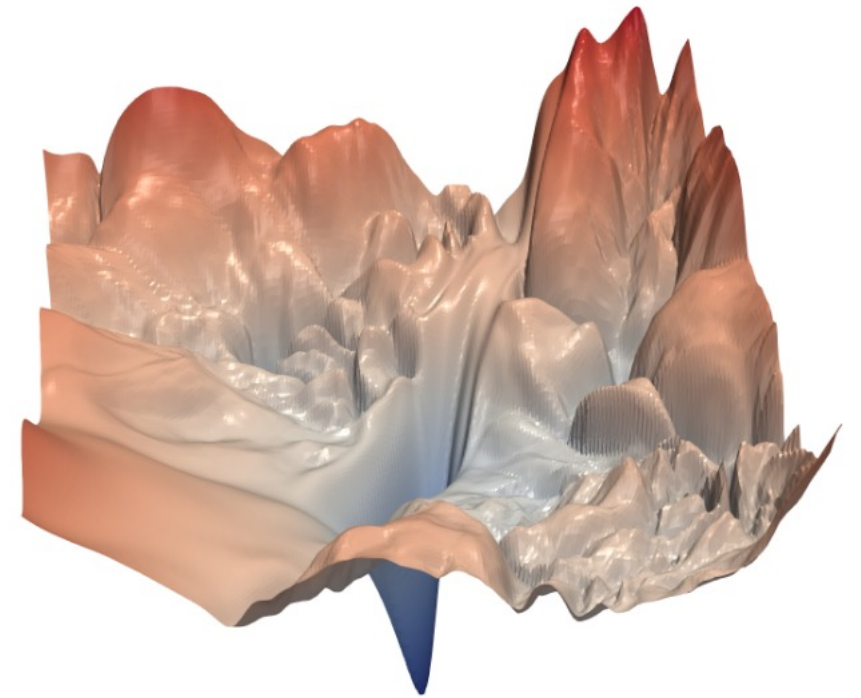
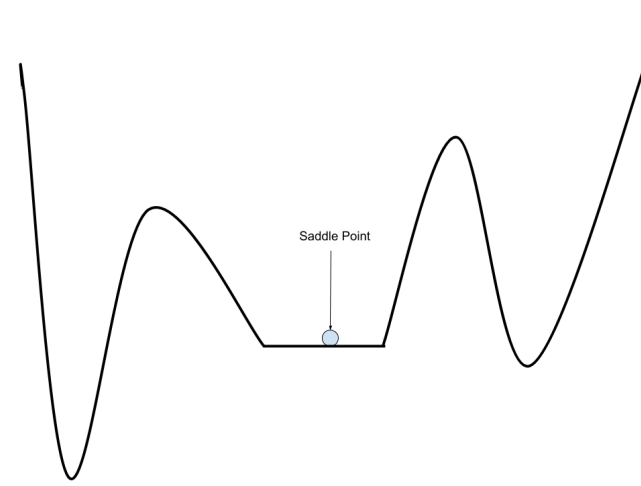
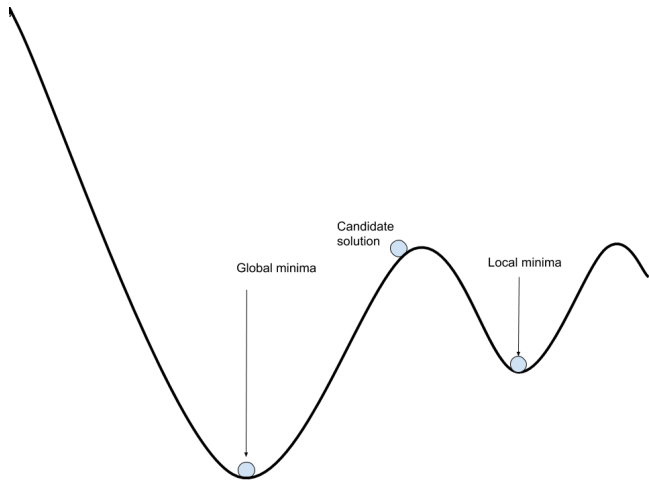


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Optimization: Loss Surface

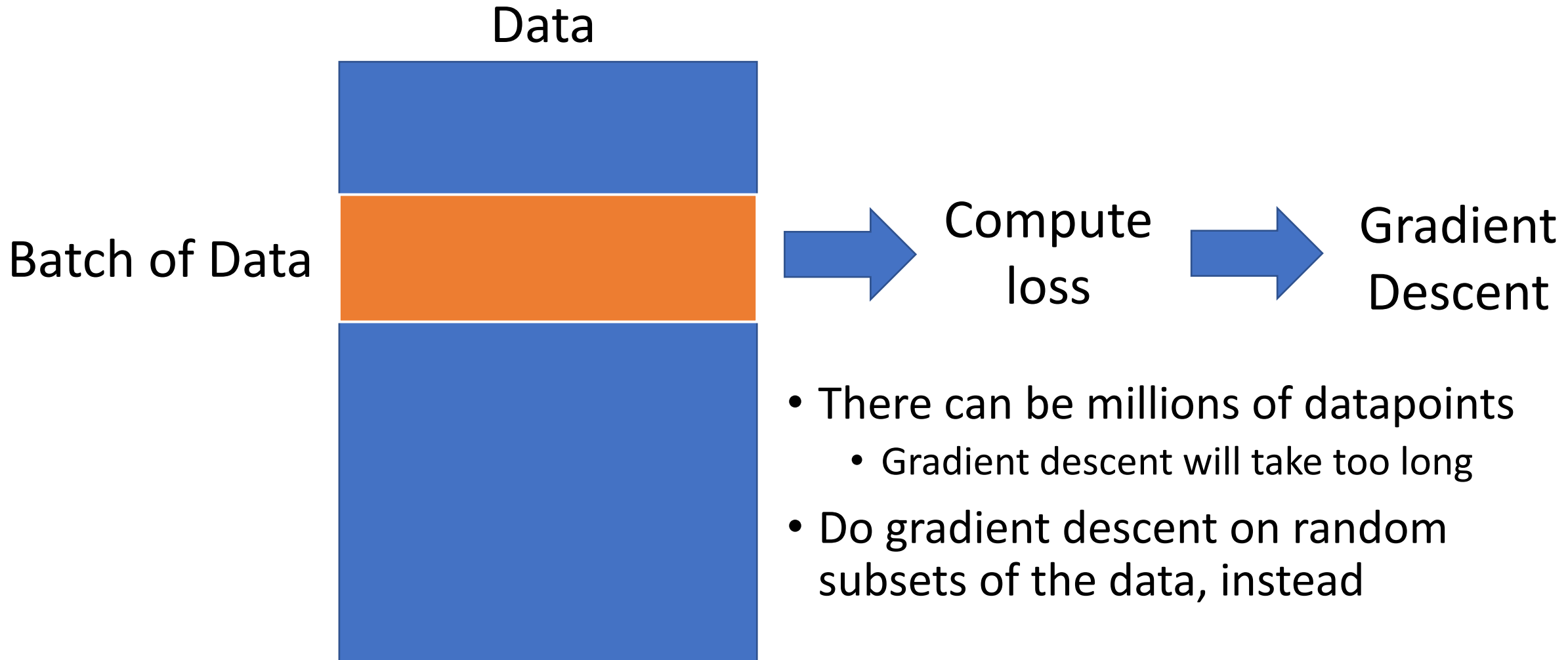
- No longer convex
- Local minima
- Saddle points



Optimization: Gradient Based Methods

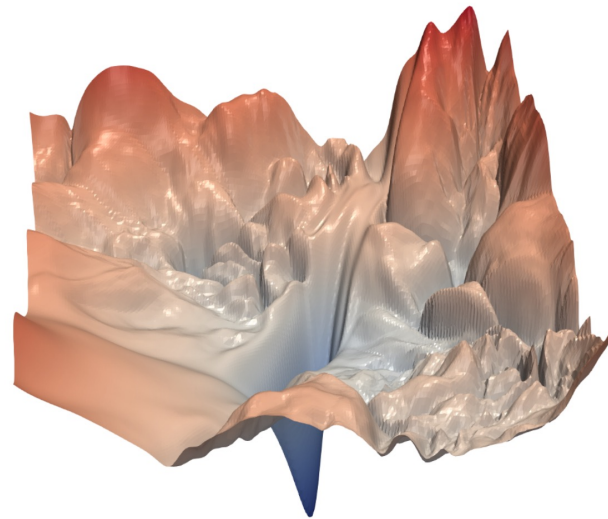
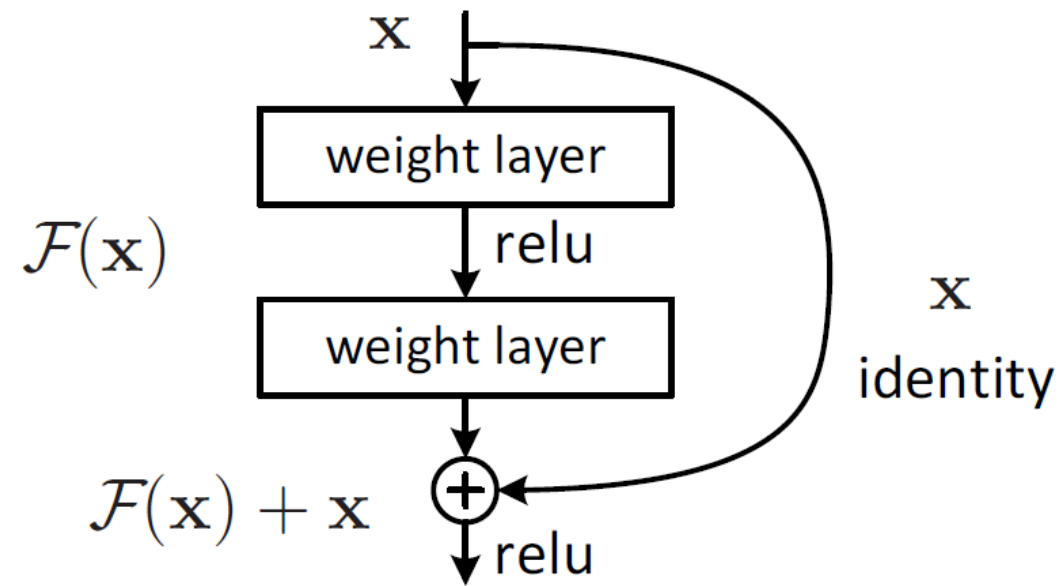
- Vanilla Gradient Descent
 - $\mathbf{w} = \mathbf{w} - \alpha \nabla_{\mathbf{w}} E(\mathbf{w})$
- Gradient Descent with Momentum
 - $\mathbf{v} = \mu \mathbf{v} + \alpha \nabla_{\mathbf{w}} E(\mathbf{w})$
 - $\mathbf{w} = \mathbf{w} - \mathbf{v}$
- ADAM
 - $\mathbf{m} = \beta_1 \mathbf{m} + (1 - \beta_1)(\nabla_{\mathbf{w}} E(\mathbf{w}))^2$ //estimate of the mean of the gradients
 - $\mathbf{v} = \beta_2 \mathbf{v} + (1 - \beta_2)(\nabla_{\mathbf{w}} E(\mathbf{w}))^2$ //estimate of the variance of the gradients
 - $\hat{\mathbf{m}}$ and $\hat{\mathbf{v}}$ are bias corrected estimates of the mean and variance
 - $\mathbf{w} = \mathbf{w} - \frac{\alpha}{\sqrt{\hat{\mathbf{v}} + \epsilon}} \hat{\mathbf{m}}$
- Many others: <https://ruder.io/optimizing-gradient-descent/>

Optimization: Stochastic Gradient Descent

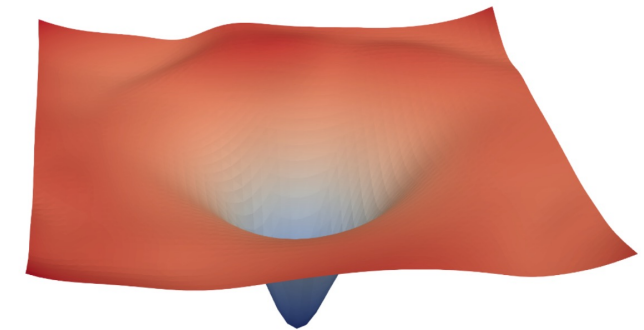


Optimization: Residual Neural Networks

- Training can become more difficult as the number of layers increases
- Adding skip connections allows us to train networks with hundreds of layers



(a) without skip connections

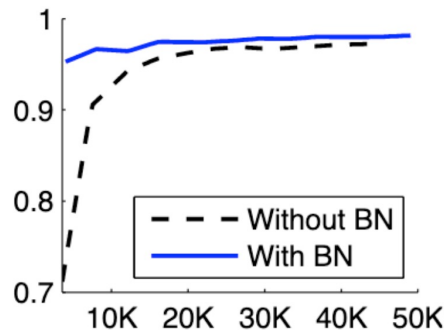


(b) with skip connections

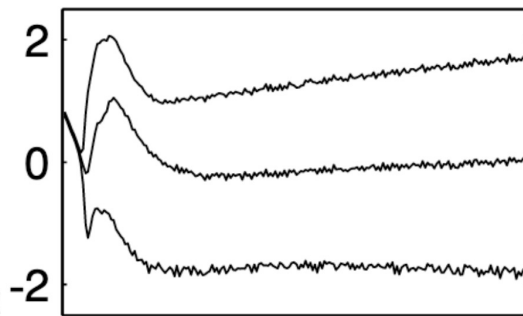
Loss surface

Optimization: Batch Normalization

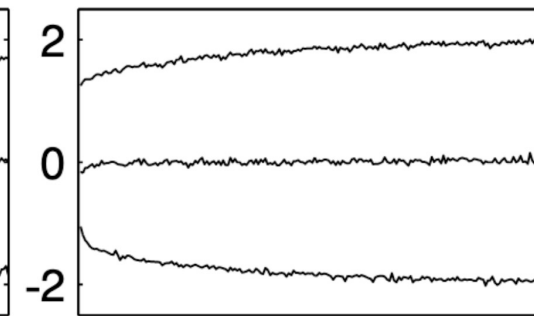
- Normalizes the input to the activation function to have a of mean 0 and standard deviation of 1
- Stabilizes training
 - Allows larger learning rates
 - Reduces importance of initialization
- $\mathbf{H} = \sigma(\text{BN}(\mathbf{WX}))$
- Adds some regularization



(a)



(b) Without BN



(c) With BN

Optimization: Initialization

- The weights of the DNN are randomly initialized
- Initialization can play a large role in optimization
- Xavier/Glorot initialization is fairly common
- Initialization matters less when doing
 - Batch normalization
 - Weight normalization

What to Try?

- Activation Function
 - Rectified Linear Units
- Gradient-Based Optimization
 - SGD with momentum
 - ADAM
- Convolution (for structured input like images or sound)
- Batch Normalization
- Residual Networks
- If overfitting?
 - Weight regularization
 - Dropout
 - In higher layers first

Deep Learning/Machine Learning Demos

- <https://p.migdal.pl/interactive-machine-learning-list/>
- <https://cs.stanford.edu/people/karpathy/convnetjs/demo/regression.html>

Relevant Papers

- **Xavier/Glorot Init:** Glorot, Xavier, and Yoshua Bengio. "Understanding the difficulty of training deep feedforward neural networks." *Proceedings of the thirteenth international conference on artificial intelligence and statistics*. 2010.
- **SGD w/ Momentum:** Sutskever, Ilya, et al. "On the importance of initialization and momentum in deep learning." *International conference on machine learning*. 2013.
- **Imagenet:** Krizhevsky, Alex, Ilya Sutskever, and Geoffrey E. Hinton. "Imagenet classification with deep convolutional neural networks." *Advances in neural information processing systems*. 2012.
- **ADAM:** Kingma, Diederik P., and Jimmy Ba. "Adam: A method for stochastic optimization." *arXiv preprint arXiv:1412.6980* (2014).
- **Batch Normalization:** Ioffe, Sergey, and Christian Szegedy. "Batch normalization: Accelerating deep network training by reducing internal covariate shift." *arXiv preprint arXiv:1502.03167* (2015).
- **Residual Networks:** He, Kaiming, et al. "Deep residual learning for image recognition." *Proceedings of the IEEE conference on computer vision and pattern recognition*. 2016.